

# Intraoperation Parallelism

## 1 Overview

**Intraoperation parallelism** refers to parallelizing the execution of a single relational operation (like sort, join, or aggregation) by executing it simultaneously on different subsets of the data.

### Data Parallelism

Execution of the same operation in parallel on different sets of data is called **data parallelism**. This is natural in database systems because relations contain large sets of tuples that can be partitioned across multiple processors.

### Data Parallelism in Action

If a table has 10 million rows and we have 10 processors, we can assign 1 million rows/-tuples to each processor. If each processor can process 1 million rows in 1 second, the entire operation takes 1 second instead of 10 seconds.

## 2 Parallel Sort

Sorting can be parallelized in two primary ways depending on how the data is partitioned.

### 2.1 Range-Partitioning Sort

This method works in two distinct steps:

1. **Redistribution:** Tuples are redistributed using a range-partition strategy. All tuples in the  $i$ -th range are sent to processor  $P_i$ .
2. **Local Sorting:** Each processor  $P_i$  sorts its partition locally and independently.

### Range-Partitioning Sort Example

Suppose we sort a relation on the *Age* attribute across 3 processors:

- $P_0$  receives tuples where  $Age < 25$ .
- $P_1$  receives tuples where  $25 \leq Age < 50$ .
- $P_2$  receives tuples where  $Age \geq 50$ .

Each processor sorts its assigned chunk. The final sorted relation is just  $P_0$  followed by  $P_1$  and then  $P_2$  (simple concatenation).

## 2.2 Parallel External Sort–Merge

This is an alternative when data is distributed (using any method) across  $n$  disks:

1. Each processor  $P_i$  locally sorts the data on its disk  $D_i$ .
2. **Parallel Merging:**
  - Sorted partitions are range-partitioned across processors  $P_0, \dots, P_{m-1}$ .
  - Each processor performs a merge on the received sorted streams.
  - The results are concatenated.

### Parallel External Sort–Merge Example

Imagine sorting names across 2 processors ( $P_0, P_1$ ):

1. **Local Sort:**  $P_0$  sorts its data to get [Alice, Zeke].  $P_1$  sorts its data to get [Bob, Yoyo].
2. **Redistribution (Range Partitioning):** Range A-M is assigned to  $P_0$ , N-Z to  $P_1$ .
  - $P_0$  sends Zeke to  $P_1$ .
  - $P_1$  sends Bob to  $P_0$ .
3. **Merge:**
  - $P_0$  merges Alice and Bob  $\rightarrow$  [Alice, Bob].
  - $P_1$  merges Yoyo and Zeke  $\rightarrow$  [Yoyo, Zeke].

Result:  $P_0$  followed by  $P_1$  gives [Alice, Bob, Yoyo, Zeke].

### Communication Skew in Merging

If every processor sends partition 0 to  $P_0$  first, then partition 1 to  $P_1$ , receiving becomes sequential. **Solution:** Each processor should cycle through partitions, sending one block to each in every round to ensure all receivers work in parallel.

## 3 Parallel Join

Join parallelism attempts to split pairs of tuples to be tested over several processors.

### 3.1 Partitioned Join

Applicable for **equi-joins** and **natural joins**.

- Both relations  $r$  and  $s$  are partitioned into  $n$  partitions using the **same partitioning function** (hash or range) on the join attributes.
- Partition  $r_i$  and  $s_i$  are sent to processor  $P_i$ , which computes the join locally.

### Partitioned Join Scenario

Joining `Employee(ID, Name, DeptID)` and `Department(DeptID, DName)`:

1. Use  $\text{hash}(\text{DeptID}) \% N$  to partition both tables across  $N$  processors.
2. Processor  $P_i$  gets all employees and departments belonging to hash bucket  $i$ .
3. Since matching `DeptID` values always hash to the same bucket,  $P_i$  has all potential matches for its subset.

### 3.2 Fragment-and-Replicate Join

Partitioning is not applicable for some join conditions, such as non-equi joins (e.g.,  $r.A > s.B$ ) or inequality predicates. In such cases, the system uses the **fragment-and-replicate** technique to ensure every tuple in  $r$  can be tested against every tuple in  $s$ .

- **Asymmetric Case:** One relation (e.g.,  $r$ ) is partitioned using any technique (round-robin, hash, etc.), and the other relation ( $s$ ) is **replicated** across all processors. Each processor  $P_i$  computes the join of partition  $r_i$  with the complete set  $s$ .
- **General Case:** Relation  $r$  is partitioned into  $n$  parts ( $r_0, \dots, r_{n-1}$ ) and  $s$  into  $m$  parts ( $s_0, \dots, s_{m-1}$ ). This requires  $n \times m$  processors ( $P_{0,0}$  to  $P_{n-1,m-1}$ ). Each processor  $P_{i,j}$  computes the join of  $r_i$  with  $s_j$ .

#### Asymmetric Fragment-and-Replicate

**Scenario:** Joining a massive 500GB `Transactions` table with a small 10MB `StoreBranch` table.

1. `Transactions` is already partitioned across 50 processors ( $r_0, \dots, r_{49}$ ).
2. Replicate the entire 10MB `StoreBranch` ( $s$ ) to every one of the 50 processors.
3. **Result:** Each processor joins its 10GB of transactions with the local copy of branch data. This is cheaper than repartitioning both on join attributes.

#### General Fragment-and-Replicate

**Scenario:** Joining  $r$  (4 partitions) and  $s$  (2 partitions) across  $4 \times 2 = 8$  processors.

- **Replication of  $r$ :** Fragment  $r_i$  is replicated across processors  $P_{i,0}$  and  $P_{i,1}$ .
- **Replication of  $s$ :** Fragment  $s_j$  is replicated across processors  $P_{0,j}, P_{1,j}, P_{2,j}, P_{3,j}$ .
- **Computation:** Processor  $P_{2,1}$  specifically joins local fragments  $r_2$  and  $s_1$ .

This reduces the memory footprint for  $s$  at each processor compared to the asymmetric case.

### Cost Considerations

Fragment-and-replicate usually has a **higher cost** than partitioned join because it involves extensive data replication. However, it is the only viable option for arbitrary join conditions and is highly efficient when one relation is small enough to fit in memory.

### 3.3 Partitioned Parallel Hash Join

This algorithm parallelizes the standard hash-join by distributing the workload across  $n$  processors. Assume  $s$  is the smaller relation (build relation) and  $r$  is the larger relation (probe relation).

1. **Partitioning Phase ( $s$ ):** A hash function  $h_1$  maps each tuple in  $s$  to one of the  $n$  processors. Each processor  $P_i$  reads local tuples of  $s$  from disk  $D_i$  and sends them to the destination processor determined by  $h_1(\text{join\_attr})$ .
2. **Local Partitioning ( $s_i$ ):** As processor  $P_i$  receives tuples ( $s_i$ ), it partitions them further using a **second hash function**  $h_2$ . This  $h_2$  is used to build the local hash table in memory.
3. **Redistribution Phase ( $r$ ):** Once  $s$  is distributed, the larger relation  $r$  is redistributed using the same hash function  $h_1$ .
4. **Build and Probe:** As  $P_i$  receives tuples of  $r$  ( $r_i$ ), it repartitions them using  $h_2$  to probe the local hash table and produce results.

#### Parallel Hash Join Scenario

Joining Orders ( $r$ ) and Customers ( $s$ ) on CustomerID:

- $h_1$ : CustomerID % 4 determines which of the 4 processors handles the tuple.
- $h_2$ : A more complex hash like MurmurHash(CustomerID) used locally by each processor to manage its in-memory hash bucket chain.
- **Optimization:** Hybrid hash-join can be used to keep the first partition of  $s_i$  in memory to avoid disk I/O for that chunk.

### 3.4 Parallel Nested-Loop Join

This technique is particularly useful when one relation is small and the other is already partitioned with an index.

- **Condition:** Relation  $s$  is small,  $r$  is large and partitioned across disks. There is an **index** on the join attribute of  $r$  at each partition.
- **Mechanism:** Use **asymmetric fragment-and-replicate**. Relation  $s$  is replicated across all processors  $P_i$  that store a partition of  $r$ .
- **Execution:** Each processor  $P_i$  performs an **indexed nested-loop join** between the local partition  $r_i$  and the replicated relation  $s$ .

### Indexed Parallel Nested-Loop Example

**Query:** Find all VIP\_Customers ( $s$ , 1000 rows) and their Transactions ( $r$ , 1 Billion rows).

1. Transactions table is already partitioned across 100 nodes, each with a B+ Tree index on CustomerID.
2. Broadcast the 1000 VIP records to all 100 nodes.
3. Each node iterates through the 1000 VIPs and performs a high-speed index lookup on its local 10-million-row Transactions fragment.

## 4 Other Relational Operations

### 4.1 Selection $\sigma_{\theta}(r)$

The parallelization of selection depends on the selection condition  $\theta$ :

- **Point Selection** ( $\theta : a_i = v$ ): If  $r$  is partitioned on attribute  $a_i$ , the selection is performed at a **single processor**.
- **Range Selection** ( $\theta : l \leq a_i \leq u$ ): If  $r$  is range-partitioned on  $a_i$ , the selection is performed only at processors whose partitions **overlap** with the specified range  $[l, u]$ .
- **Other Cases:** The selection must be performed in parallel across **all processors**.

### 4.2 Duplicate Elimination

Can be performed using two primary techniques:

- **Sorting approach:** Use parallel sort and eliminate duplicates as soon as they are found during the sorting process.
- **Partitioning approach:** Partition the tuples using range or hash partitioning on all attributes, then perform duplicate elimination **locally** at each processor.

### 4.3 Projection

- **Without Duplicate Elimination:** Performed in parallel as tuples are read from disk.
- **With Duplicate Elimination:** Requires one of the techniques mentioned above (sorting or partitioning).

### 4.4 Grouping and Aggregation

To parallelize aggregation, the relation is partitioned on the grouping attributes, and aggregate values are computed locally.

### Optimized Two-Stage Aggregation

To reduce communication costs, we can perform **partial aggregation** before partitioning:

1. **Local Stage:** Each processor  $P_i$  computes partial aggregates (e.g., partial sums/-counts) for its local data on disk  $D_i$ .
2. **Redistribution:** Only the partial results are partitioned on the grouping attributes.
3. **Final Stage:** Destination processors compute the final global aggregate from the partial ones.

*Benefit:* Significantly fewer tuples are sent across the network compared to redistributing the raw data.

## 5 Cost of Parallel Evaluation

If there is no skew and no parallel overhead, the expected speed-up is  $1/n$  for  $n$  processors. However, real-world performance is estimated as:

$$T_{total} = T_{part} + T_{asm} + \max(T_0, T_1, \dots, T_{n-1})$$

### Cost Components

- $T_{part}$ : Time for partitioning the relations among processors.
- $T_{asm}$ : Time for assembling the results from all processors.
- $T_i$ : Time taken for the operation at processor  $P_i$ .

### Performance Factors

The estimation of  $T_i$  must account for:

- **Skew:** Uneven distribution of work (the slowest processor  $P_{max}$  dictates  $T_{total}$ ).
- **Contention:** Conflict for shared resources (memory, disk, network bandwidth).
- **Start-up Costs:** Overhead of initiating the operation on multiple nodes.

*Intraoperation parallelism provides the foundation for massive scalability in modern database systems.*